

L6

Evaluating the OLS fit

Today's agenda:

- R-squared
- Estimating standard errors
- Hypothesis testing

R-squared / Coefficient of Determination

Recall:

- $Y = \begin{pmatrix} y_1 \\ \vdots \\ y_n \end{pmatrix} \sim$ vector of training outputs

- $\hat{Y} = \begin{pmatrix} \hat{y}_1 \\ \vdots \\ \hat{y}_n \end{pmatrix} \sim$ vector of predicted outputs
under OLS

$$= HY \quad (\text{assuming } X \text{ has full col. rank})$$

- $RSS = \|Y - \hat{Y}\|^2$
 $= \sum_1^n (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2$

Define:

a) $TSS = \sum_1^n (y_i - \bar{y})^2$

total sum of squares

where $\bar{y} = \frac{1}{n} \sum_1^n y_i$

$$= \|Y - \bar{Y}\|^2$$

where $\bar{Y} = \begin{pmatrix} \bar{y}_1 \\ \vdots \\ \bar{y}_n \end{pmatrix}$

Note: TSS captures the inherent variability of training outputs

$$b) \text{MSS} = \sum_i^n (\hat{y}_i - \bar{y})^2$$

Model sum of squares

$$= \|\hat{y} - \bar{y}\|^2$$

Note: MSS captures the o/p variability explained by the model

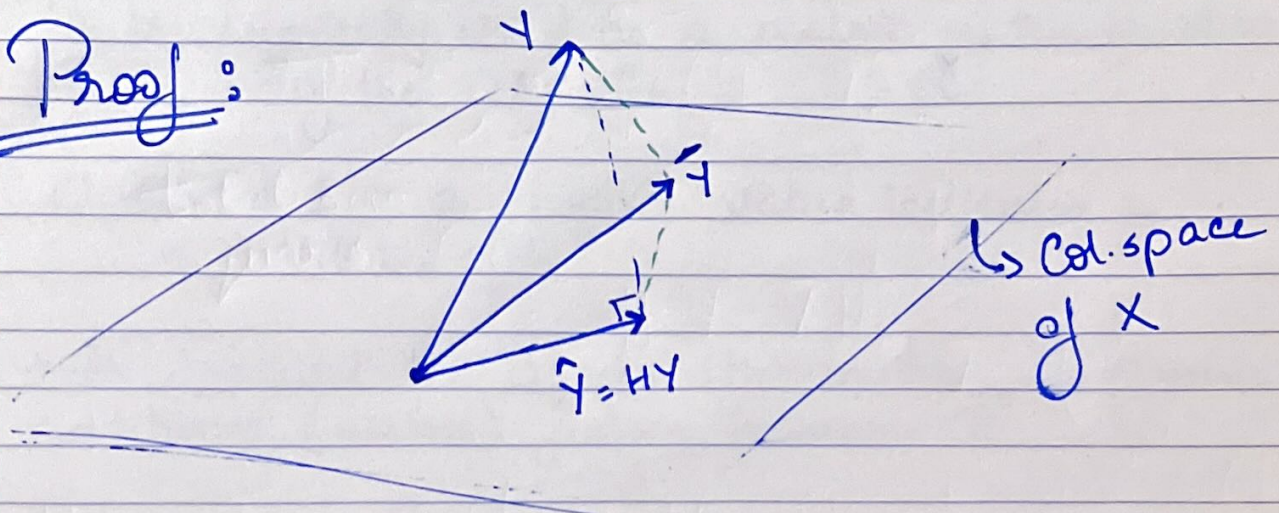
Note: In some references, MSS is referred to as ESS (explained sum of squares)

Turns out:

$$\text{TSS} = \text{MSS} + \text{RSS}$$

o/p variability o/p variability explained by (OLS) model mismatch between o/p & model

Proof:



- $y - \hat{y}$ is $\perp$ to col. space of X
- $\bar{y}$ lies in col. space of X (Why?)
- By Pythagorean theorem,

$$\underbrace{\|y - \bar{y}\|^2}_{\text{TSS}} = \underbrace{\|y - \hat{y}\|^2}_{\text{RSS}} + \underbrace{\|\hat{y} - \bar{y}\|^2}_{\text{MSS}}$$

□

We define

$$R^2 = \frac{\text{MSS}}{\text{TSS}} = 1 - \frac{\text{RSS}}{\text{TSS}}$$

R-squared
coefficient of determination

R^2 is typically used as a metric of the quality of the OLS fit.

$0 \leq R^2 \leq 1$; a higher value indicates a better fit.

★ Should be used with caution. Introducing additional (useless) features increases R^2 .

Estimating standard errors

Under our statistical model, we assumed

$$y_i = \beta_0^* + \sum_j^p \beta_j^* x_{ij} + \varepsilon_i$$

$\varepsilon_i \sim N(0, \sigma^2)$

$$= \langle \beta^*, \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ x_i \end{pmatrix} \rangle + \varepsilon_i$$

Here β^* & σ^2 are unknowns.

- Turns out:
- $\hat{\beta}$ is MLE of β^*
 - $E[\hat{\beta}] = \beta^*$
 $\Rightarrow$ MLE is unbiased
 - $\text{Cov}(\hat{\beta}) = \sigma^2 (X^T X)^{-1}$

Q: Can MLE also estimate σ^2 ?

A: Yes!

$$\hat{\sigma}^2 = \frac{RSS}{n-p-1}$$

$\hookrightarrow$ unbiased estimate of σ^2

We can use these facts to develop confidence intervals on the regression co-efficients.

Note:

$$\text{Var}(\hat{\beta}_i) = \sigma^2 C_i$$

↓
coefficient of i^{th} feature

↪ i^{th} diagonal entry of $(X^T X)^{-1}$

$$\Rightarrow \text{Var}(\hat{\beta}_i) \approx \hat{\sigma}^2 C_i$$

Define $\underbrace{SE(\hat{\beta}_i)}_{\text{standard error}} = \sqrt{\hat{\sigma}^2 C_i}$

estimate of $\underbrace{\text{std. deviation variance}}_{\text{variance}}$ of $\hat{\beta}_i$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{\text{Can assume } \beta_i^* \text{ lies within } \hat{\beta}_i \pm SE(\hat{\beta}_i)}$$

Captures our uncertainty in the estimation of β_i^*

Hypothesis testing

- A rigorous statistical framework to answer yes-no questions.

Eg Does smoking increase likelihood of lung ~~cancer~~ cancer?

Eg Is a certain regression coefficient zero?

Eg Is the avg. blood pressure among mice in the treatment group the same as that in the control group?

4 steps

Step 1. Define null & alternative hypotheses

- Null hypothesis H_0 represents our default state of ~~best~~ belief.
- Alternative hypothesis: something different / unexpected surprising; complement of H_0 .

Goal: See if data allows us to confidently reject the null hypothesis.

Note: This setup is asymmetric between H_0 & H_a .

- Rejecting H_0 means we are confident H_0 does not hold.
- Failure to reject $H_0 \Rightarrow$ we are unable to reject H_0 , based on available data. Either H_0 does hold, or we do not have enough data to reject H_0 .

Step 2. Design the test statistic

The test statistic summarizes the extent to which the data is consistent with H_0 .

Step 3 Compute p-value

The p-value is the probability ^{of} ~~that the~~ observing a test statistic at least as extreme as the observed value.

Small p-value $\Rightarrow$ evidence against H_0

Step 4 Decide whether or not to reject null hypothesis.

Typically, we reject H_0 if p-value $< \underline{\underline{0.05}}$.

Threshold is a hyperparameter
could be even smaller for mission critical applications

Application to linear regression

Q: Is the i^{th} feature useful in predicting the o/p?

Eg: Does gender play a role in predicting loan default probability?

This is posed as a hypothesis testing problem as follows:

$$H_0: \beta_i^* = 0$$

$$H_a: \beta_i^* \neq 0$$

} Step 1

Turns out:

$$\hat{\beta}_i \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 1)$$

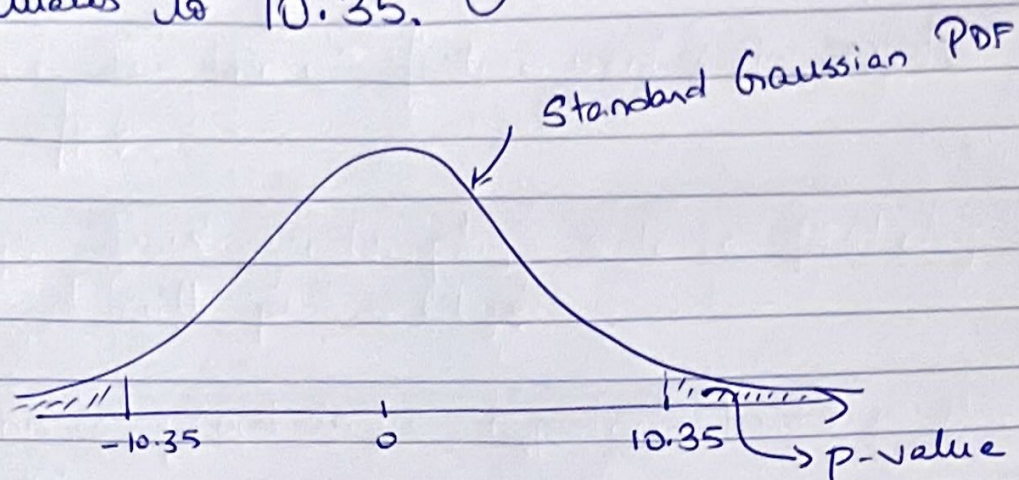
$$\sqrt{C_i \sigma^2}$$

i^{th} diagonal entry
of $(X^T X)^{-1}$

But we don't know σ^2 !

$$\text{Turns out: } \frac{\hat{\beta}_i}{\sqrt{C_i \hat{\sigma}^2}} \approx \mathcal{N}(0, 1) \quad \left. \begin{array}{l} \text{Step 2} \\ \text{test} \\ \text{statistic} \end{array} \right\}$$

Eg Say that the value of the test statistic evaluates to 10.35.



$$p\text{-value} = 4 \times 10^{-25}$$

Moral: If H_0 holds, the probability of this extreme a test statistic is very unlikely.

$\Rightarrow$ We may reject the null hypothesis.

★ Give example via advertising dataset.